

CSC311H5 Introduction to Machine Learning

Lecture 11

University of Toronto Mississauga

Unsupervised Learning

In the last two lectures, we will explore approaches for **unsupervised Learning**

No labeled examples; instead, looking for *interesting patterns* in the data

But what are *interesting patterns*?

Unsupervised Learning

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No labeled examples; instead, looking for *interesting patterns* in the data

But what are *interesting patterns*?

- Do data form *clusters*: i.e., are there groups of data points that are more similar to each other than to other data points?
- Can data be expressed in a lower-dimensional space?: i.e., do data points tend to fall in a *subspace* or *manifold* of the space that they inhabit?

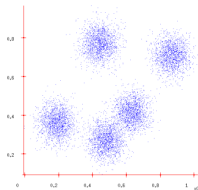
Today's Lecture on Clustering

First, introduce **k-means** a simple algorithm for **clustering**, i.e. grouping data points into clusters

Then, we will reformulate clustering as a latent variable model, apply the **Expectation-Maximization** algorithm

Clustering

Sometimes the data form clusters, where samples within a cluster are similar to each other, and samples in different clusters are dissimilar:

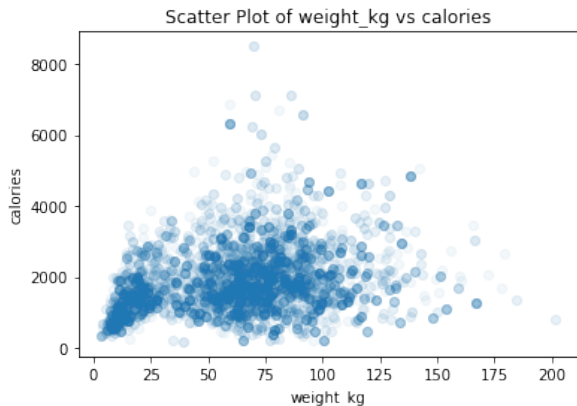


Such a distribution is **multimodal**, since it has multiple **modes**, or regions of high probability mass.

Grouping data points into clusters, **with no observed labels**, is called **clustering**. It is an unsupervised learning technique.

Example: clustering machine learning papers based on topic (deep learning, Bayesian models, etc.) *But topics are never observed (unsupervised)!*

Concrete Example from NHANES



What are the two axes? What are the “modes”? What clusters do you see?

Section 1

K-Means Clustering

k-means intuition

K-means assumes there are K clusters, and each point is close to its cluster **center**, or **mean** (the mean of points in the cluster).

- If we knew the cluster assignment, we could easily compute the centers.
- If we knew the centers, we could easily compute cluster assignment.

This is a chicken and egg problem!

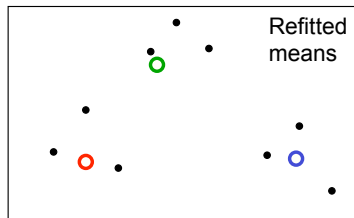
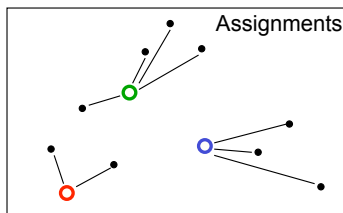
Very simple (and useful) heuristic - start randomly and alternate between the two!

K-means algorithm sketch

Initialization: randomly initialize cluster centers

The algorithm iteratively alternates between two steps:

- **Assignment step:** Assign each data point to the closest cluster
- **Refitting step:** Move each cluster center to the center of gravity of the data assigned to it



Exercise

Perform one iteration of k-means clustering on the data set in the handout. Initialize the cluster centers to $(0,0)$ and $(5,4)$.

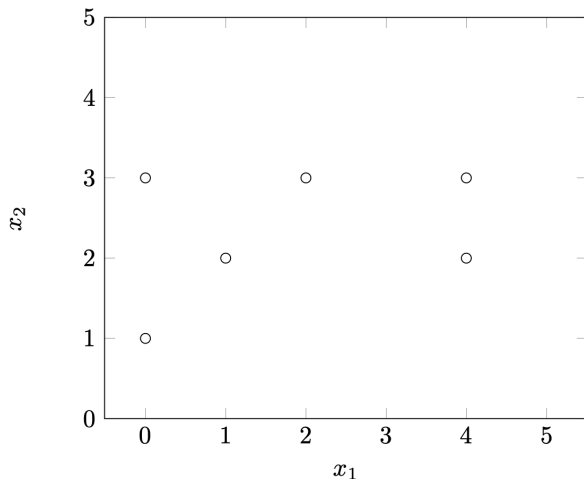
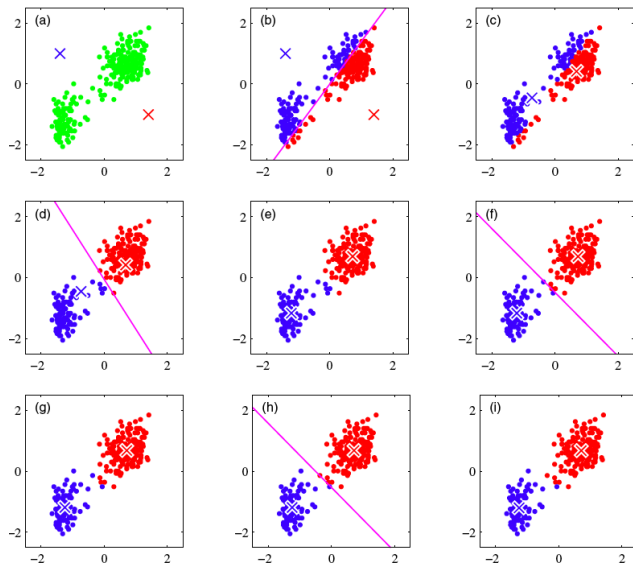


Figure from Bishop



What is actually being optimized?

k-means Objective: Find cluster centers $\mathbf{m}_k$ and assignments $\mathbf{r}^{(n)}$ to minimize the sum of squared distances of data points $\{\mathbf{x}^{(n)}\}$ to their assigned cluster centers:

$$\min_{\{\mathbf{m}_k\}, \{\mathbf{r}^{(n)}\}} \sum_{n=1}^N \sum_{k=1}^K r_k^{(n)} \|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2$$

where $\mathbf{r}^{(n)}$ is a one-hot vector with $r_k^{(n)} \in \{0, 1\}$, and $r_k^{(n)} = 1$ means that $\mathbf{x}^{(n)}$ is assigned to cluster k (with center $\mathbf{m}_k$).

That is, if $\mathbf{x}^{(n)}$ is assigned to cluster $\hat{k}$,

$$\mathbf{r}^{(n)} = \underbrace{[0, 0, \dots, 1, \dots, 0]^T}_{\text{Only } \hat{k}\text{-th entry is 1}}$$

K-Means Objective

$$\min_{\{\mathbf{m}_k\}, \{\mathbf{r}^{(n)}\}} \sum_{n=1}^N \sum_{k=1}^K r_k^{(n)} \|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2$$

- Finding the exact optimum can be shown to be NP-hard.
- K-means can be seen as block coordinate descent on this objective
 - ▶ **Assignment step:** minimize with respect to $\{r_k^{(n)}\}$
 - ▶ **Refitting step:** minimize with respect to $\{\mathbf{m}_k\}$

How to optimize?: Alternating Minimization

Optimization problem: $\min_{\{\mathbf{m}_k\}, \{\mathbf{r}^{(n)}\}} \sum_{n=1}^N \sum_{k=1}^K r_k^{(n)} \|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2$

If we fix the centers $\{\mathbf{m}_k\}$ then we can easily find the optimal assignments $\{\mathbf{r}^{(n)}\}$ for each sample n ,

$$\min_{\mathbf{r}^{(n)}} \sum_{k=1}^K r_k^{(n)} \|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2$$

Assignment Step: Assign each point to the cluster with the nearest center

$$r_k^{(n)} = \left\{ \begin{array}{ll} 1 & \text{if } k = \arg \min_j \|\mathbf{x}^{(n)} - \mathbf{m}_j\|^2 \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{array} \right\}$$

Alternating Minimization

Likewise, if we fix the assignments $\{\mathbf{r}^{(n)}\}$ then can easily find optimal centers $\{\mathbf{m}_k\}$

Refitting Step: Minimize the objective by finding its critical point.

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{0} &= \nabla_{\mathbf{m}_\ell} \left(\sum_{n=1}^N \sum_{k=1}^K r_k^{(n)} \|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2 \right) \\ &= 2 \sum_{n=1}^N r_\ell^{(n)} (\mathbf{m}_\ell - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}) \quad \implies \quad \mathbf{m}_\ell = \frac{\sum_n r_\ell^{(n)} \mathbf{x}^{(n)}}{\sum_n r_\ell^{(n)}}\end{aligned}$$

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K-Means simply alternates between minimizing with respect to **assignments** and **centers**.

This is an instance of **alternating minimization**, or **block coordinate descent**.

The K-means Algorithm

Initialization: Set K cluster means $\mathbf{m}_1, \dots, \mathbf{m}_K$ to random values

Repeat until convergence (until assignments do not change):

- **Assignment:** Optimize the objective with respect to $\{\mathbf{r}\}$: Each data point $\mathbf{x}^{(n)}$ assigned to nearest center

$$\hat{k}^{(n)} = \arg \min_k \|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2$$

and set the **responsibilities** accordingly:

$$r_k^{(n)} = \mathbb{I}[\hat{k}^{(n)} = k] \quad \text{for } k = 1, \dots, K$$

- **Refitting:** Optimize the objective with respect to $\{\mathbf{m}\}$: Each center is set to mean of the data assigned to it

$$\mathbf{m}_k = \frac{\sum_n r_k^{(n)} \mathbf{x}^{(n)}}{\sum_n r_k^{(n)}}$$

Why K-means Converges

$$\text{K-means Cost: } \sum_{n=1}^N \sum_{k=1}^K r_k^{(n)} \|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2$$

K-means algorithm reduces the cost at each iteration.

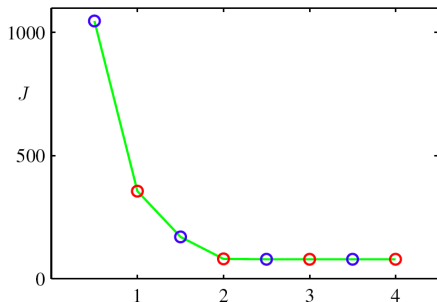
- Whenever an assignment is changed, the sum squared distances of data points from their assigned cluster centers is reduced.
- Whenever a cluster center is moved, the total cost is reduced.

Test for convergence: If the assignments do not change in the assignment step, we have converged (to at least a local minimum).

- This will always happen after a finite number of iterations, since the number of possible cluster assignments is finite

K-means cost across iterations

K-means cost function after each assignment step (blue) and refitting step (red).

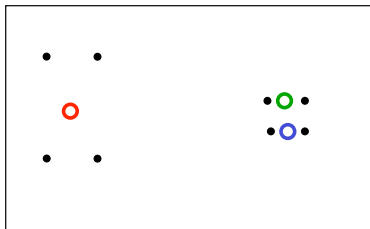


The algorithm has converged after the third refitting step.

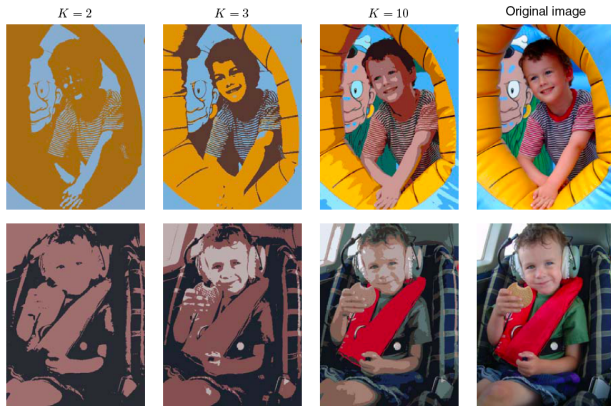
Local Minima

- The objective is non-convex (so coordinate descent is not guaranteed to converge to the global minimum)
- There is nothing to prevent k-means getting stuck at local minima.
- We could try many random starting points

A bad local optimum

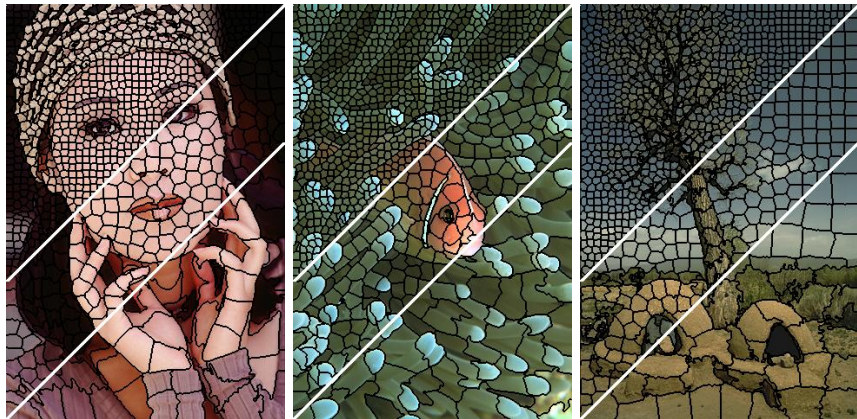


Example: K-means for Vector Quantization



- Given image, construct “dataset” of pixels represented by their RGB pixel intensities
- Run k-means, replace each pixel by its cluster center

Example: K-means for Image Segmentation



- Given image, construct “dataset” of pixels, represented by their RGB pixel intensities and grid locations
- Run k-means (with some modifications) to get *superpixels*

Soft K-means

Instead of making hard assignments of data points to clusters, we can make **soft assignments**. One cluster may have a responsibility of 0.7 for a data point and another may have a responsibility of 0.3.

- Allows a cluster to use more information about the data in the refitting step.
- How do we decide on the soft assignments?
- We already saw this in multi-class classification: one-hot encoding vs softmax assignments

Soft K-means Algorithm

Initialization: Set K means $\{\mathbf{m}_k\}$ to random values

Repeat until convergence (measured by how much the cost changes):

- **Assignment:** Each data point n given soft “degree of assignment” to each cluster mean k , based on responsibilities

$$r_k^{(n)} = \frac{\exp[-\beta \|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2]}{\sum_{j=1}^K \exp[-\beta \|\mathbf{m}_j - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2]}$$
$$\implies \mathbf{r}^{(n)} = \text{softmax}(-\beta \{\|\mathbf{m}_k - \mathbf{x}^{(n)}\|^2\}_{k=1}^K)$$

- **Refitting:** Model parameters, means, are adjusted to match sample means of data points they are responsible for:

$$\mathbf{m}_k = \frac{\sum_n r_k^{(n)} \mathbf{x}^{(n)}}{\sum_n r_k^{(n)}}$$

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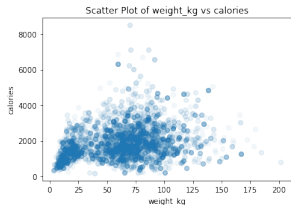
$$\mathbf{m}_k = \frac{\sum_n r_k^{(n)} \mathbf{x}^{(n)}}{\sum_n r_k^{(n)}}$$

Note: As $\beta \rightarrow \infty$, soft k-Means becomes k-Means! (Why?)

Questions about Soft K-means

Some remaining issues

- How to set β ?
- Clusters with unequal weight and width?



These aren't straightforward to address with K-means. Instead, in the sequel, we'll reformulate clustering using a generative model.

Section 2

Gaussian Mixture Models

A Generative View on Clustering

Remainder of this lecture: formulating clustering as a probabilistic model

- specify assumptions about how the observations relate to latent variables
- use an algorithm called Expectation-Maximization to (approximately) maximize the likelihood of the observations

This lets us generalize clustering to non-spherical centers or to non-Gaussian observation models

This lecture is when probabilistic modeling starts to shine!

From Generative Models to Latent Variable Models

Recall generative (Bayes) classifiers: $p(\mathbf{x}, t) = p(\mathbf{x}|t) p(t)$ where we fit $p(t)$ and $p(\mathbf{x}|t)$ using labeled data.

Idea: our model for how the data is generated is that

- First we sample t from the distribution $p(t)$
- Then, given that t , we sample $\mathbf{x}$ from the distribution $p(\mathbf{x}|t)$

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Idea: our model for how the data is generated is that

- First we sample t from the distribution $p(t)$
- Then, given that t , we sample $\mathbf{x}$ from the distribution $p(\mathbf{x}|t)$

If t is never observed, we call it a **latent variable**, or **hidden variable**, and generally denote it with z (instead of t):

$$p(\mathbf{x}, z) = p(\mathbf{x}|z) p(z)$$

The things we *can* observe (i.e., $\mathbf{x}$) are called **observables**.

Latent Variable Models

By marginalizing out z , we get a density over the observables:

$$p(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_z p(\mathbf{x}, z) = \sum_z p(\mathbf{x}|z) p(z)$$

This is called a **latent variable model**.

If $p(z)$ is a categorical distribution, this is a **mixture model**, and different values of z correspond to different **components**.

Gaussian Mixture Model (GMM)

A GMM represents a distribution as a *mixture of Gaussians*

$$p(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{x} | \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k)$$

with π_k the **mixing coefficients**, where:

$$\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k = 1 \quad \text{and} \quad \pi_k \geq 0 \quad \forall k$$

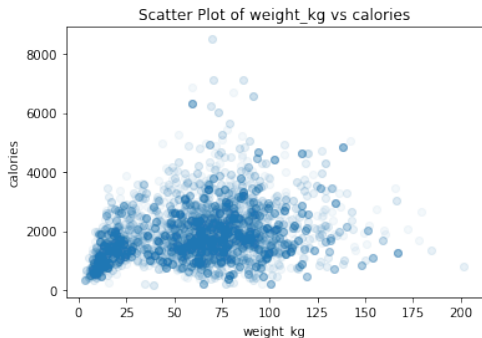
This defines a density over $\mathbf{x}$, so we can fit the parameters using maximum likelihood. We try to match the data density of $\mathbf{x}$ as closely as possible.

- This is a hard optimization problem (and the focus of this lecture).

GMM as Universal Approximators

GMMs are **universal approximators of densities** (analogously to our universality result for MLPs). Even diagonal GMMs are universal approximators.

As a concrete example, we can fit a GMM to approximate this density, as we could any other:



GMM as a Generative Process

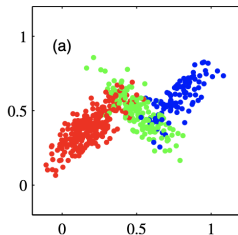
We can also write the model as a **generative process**:

For $i = 1, \dots, N$:

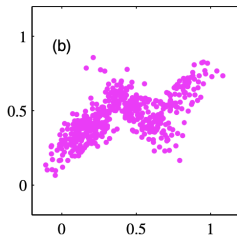
- $z^{(i)} \sim \text{Categorical}(\boldsymbol{\pi})$
 - ▶ choose a “cluster” (i.e., a Gaussian) from which to sample $\mathbf{x}^{(i)}$
- $\mathbf{x}^{(i)} \sim \mathcal{N}(\boldsymbol{\mu}_{z^{(i)}}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_{z^{(i)}})$
 - ▶ sample the observable features $\mathbf{x}^{(i)}$ from the chosen Gaussian

The Generative Model: Example

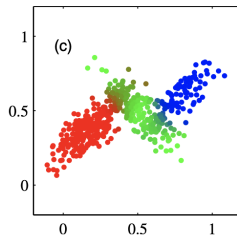
Here are 500 points drawn from a mixture of 3 (2D) Gaussians.



a) Samples from $p(\mathbf{x}|z)$



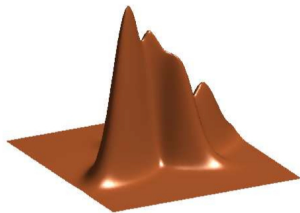
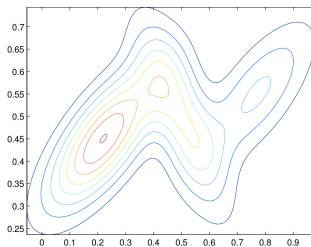
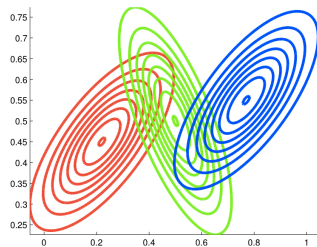
b) Samples from the marginal $p(\mathbf{x})$



c) Responsibilities $p(z|\mathbf{x})$

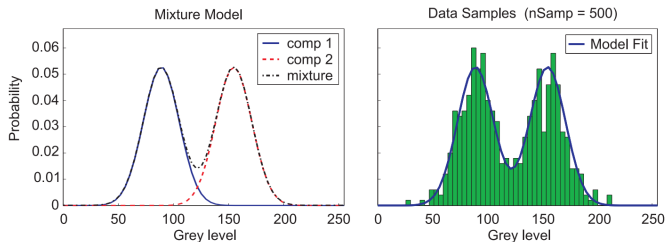
Mixture of Gaussians – 2D Gaussians

Visualizing Densities



Mixture of Gaussians – 1D Gaussians

Example of the density of a GMM with $K = 2$ Gaussians:



Fitting a Latent Variable Model?

How should we choose the parameters $\theta = \{\pi_k, \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k\}_{k=1}^K$?

Fitting a Latent Variable Model?

How should we choose the parameters $\theta = \{\pi_k, \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k\}_{k=1}^K$?

Maximum likelihood principle: choose parameters θ to maximize likelihood of observed data

- We don't observe the cluster assignments z , we only see the data $\mathbf{x}$
- Given data $\mathcal{D} = \{\mathbf{x}^{(n)}\}_{n=1}^N$, choose parameters θ to maximize:

$$\log p(\mathcal{D}; \theta) = \sum_{n=1}^N \log p(\mathbf{x}^{(n)}; \theta)$$

- We can express $p(\mathbf{x}; \theta)$ by marginalizing out z :

$$p(\mathbf{x}; \theta) = \sum_{k=1}^K P(z = k, \mathbf{x}; \theta) = \sum_{k=1}^K P(z = k; \theta) p(\mathbf{x} | z = k; \theta)$$

Section 3

Expectation Maximization (E-M)

Fitting GMMs: Maximum Likelihood

Some shorthand notation: let $\theta = \{\pi_k, \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k\}_{k=1}^K$ denote the full set of model parameters. Let $\mathbf{X} = \{\mathbf{x}^{(i)}\}_{i=1}^N$ and $\mathbf{z} = \{z^{(i)}\}_{i=1}^N$.

GMM Maximum Likelihood objective:

$$\log p(\mathbf{X}; \theta) = \sum_{i=1}^N \log \left(\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{x}^{(i)}; \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k) \right)$$

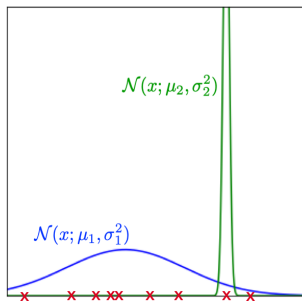
- In general, no closed-form solution
- Not **identifiable**: solution is invariant to permutations
- Challenges in optimizing this using gradient descent?
 - ▶ Non-convex (due to permutation symmetry)
 - ▶ Need to enforce non-negativity constraint on π_k
 - ▶ Need the covariance matrices $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k$ to be positive semi-definite
 - ▶ Derivatives with respect to $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k$ are expensive/complicated.

We need a different approach!

Fitting GMMs: Degenerate Solutions

Warning: We don't want the global maximum. We can achieve arbitrarily high training likelihood by placing a small-variance Gaussian component on a training example.

This is known as a **singularity**.



Latent Variable Models: Inference

Goal: maximize $\log p(\mathbf{X}; \theta) = \sum_{i=1}^N \log \left(\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{x}^{(i)}; \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k) \right)$

If we knew the parameters $\theta = \{\pi_k, \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k\}$, we could infer which component a data point $\mathbf{x}$ probably belongs to by inferring its latent variable z .

This is just posterior inference, which we do using Bayes' Rule:

$$P(z = k | \mathbf{x}) = \frac{P(z = k) p(\mathbf{x} | z = k)}{\sum_{\ell} P(z = \ell) p(\mathbf{x} | z = \ell)}$$

This is just like GDA at test time!!

Latent Variable Models: Learning

Goal: maximize $\log p(\mathbf{X}; \theta) = \sum_{i=1}^N \log \left(\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{x}^{(i)}; \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k) \right)$

If we somehow knew the latent variables for every data point, we could simply maximize the joint log-likelihood.

$$\begin{aligned} \log p(\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Z}; \theta) &= \sum_{i=1}^N \log p(\mathbf{x}^{(i)}, z^{(i)}; \theta) \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^N \log p(z^{(i)}) + \log p(\mathbf{x}^{(i)} | z^{(i)}). \end{aligned}$$

This is just like GDA at training time!!

Latent Variable Models: Learning (2)

Goal: maximize $\log p(\mathbf{X}; \theta) = \sum_{i=1}^N \log \left(\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{x}^{(i)}; \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k) \right)$

Here's our formulas from GDA, written in a suggestive notation:

$$\begin{aligned}\pi_k &= \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)}, & \boldsymbol{\mu}_k &= \frac{\sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)} \cdot \mathbf{x}^{(i)}}{\sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)}} \\ \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k &= \frac{1}{\sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)}} \sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)} (\mathbf{x}^{(i)} - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)(\mathbf{x}^{(i)} - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)^\top \\ r_k^{(i)} &= \mathbb{I}[z^{(i)} = k]\end{aligned}$$

Here we assume we know $r_k^{(1)}$, as in GDA.

Latent Variable Models

Goal: maximize $\log p(\mathbf{X}; \theta) = \sum_{i=1}^N \log \left(\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{x}^{(i)}; \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k) \right)$

We have a chicken-and-egg problem, just like with K-Means!

- Given θ , inferring $z^{(i)}$ (with the Bayes rule) is easy.
- Given the $z^{(i)}$, learning θ (with maximum likelihood) is easy.

Doing both simultaneously is hard!

- We don't observe the $z^{(i)}$ s
- The log above is outside the sum, so things don't simplify.

Can you guess the algorithm?

Expectation-Maximization Intuition

We use the **Expectation-Maximization algorithm**, which alternates between two steps:

- **Expectation step (E-step)**: Compute the posterior probability over z given our current model - i.e. how much do we think each Gaussian generates each data point.

Expectation-Maximization Intuition

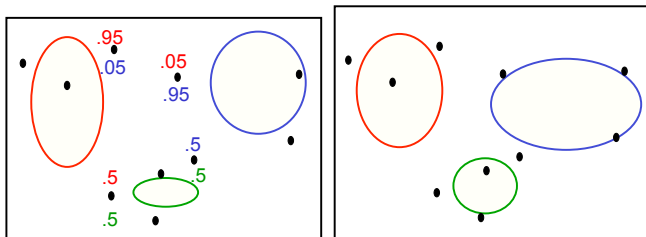
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- **Maximization step (M-step)**: Assuming that the data really was generated this way, change the parameters of each Gaussian to maximize the probability that it would generate the data it is currently responsible for.

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Expectation Maximization for GMM Overview

E-step: Assign the **responsibility** $r_k^{(i)}$ of component k for data point i using the posterior probability:

$$r_k^{(i)} = P(z^{(i)} = k | \mathbf{x}^{(i)}; \theta)$$

M-step: Apply the maximum likelihood updates, where each component is fit with a weighted dataset. The weights are proportional to the responsibilities.

$$\pi_k = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)}$$

$$\boldsymbol{\mu}_k = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)} \cdot \mathbf{x}^{(i)}}{\sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)}}$$

$$\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k = \frac{1}{\sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)}} \sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)} (\mathbf{x}^{(i)} - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)(\mathbf{x}^{(i)} - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)^\top$$

Temperature GMM Exercise (E-Step)

Exercise Suppose we have the following measures for the temperature in Toronto this month:

$$x^{(1)} = 10, x^{(2)} = 12, x^{(3)} = 5, x^{(4)} = 4, x^{(5)} = 9$$

We wish to fit a mixture of 2 Gaussians to this data set.

Suppose we initialize $\mu_1 = 2$, $\mu_2 = 7$, $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2 = 1$, and $\pi_1 = \pi_2 = 0.5$.

What is the value of the responsibility vector $\mathbf{r}^{(1)}$ for example 1? Recall that the PDF of the univariate Gaussian is

$$p(x) = \frac{1}{\sigma\sqrt{2\pi}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}\left(\frac{x-\mu}{\sigma}\right)^2}$$

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$$x^{(1)} = 10, x^{(2)} = 12, x^{(3)} = 5, x^{(4)} = 4, x^{(5)} = 9$$

We wish to fit a mixture of 2 Gaussians to this data set.

Suppose we initialize $\mu_1 = 2$, $\mu_2 = 7$, $\sigma_1 = \sigma_2 = 1$, and $\pi_1 = \pi_2 = 0.5$. What is the value of the responsibility vector $\mathbf{r}^{(1)}$ for example 1? Recall that the PDF of the univariate Gaussian is

$$p(x) = \frac{1}{\sigma\sqrt{2\pi}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}\left(\frac{x-\mu}{\sigma}\right)^2}$$

To get started, use the Bayes Rule:

$$\begin{aligned} r_k^{(1)} &= P(z^{(1)} = k | x^{(1)}; \theta) \\ &= \frac{p(x^{(1)} | z^{(1)} = 0) p(z^{(1)} = 0)}{p(x^{(1)} | z^{(1)} = 1) p(z^{(1)} = 1) + p(x^{(1)} | z^{(1)} = 2) p(z^{(1)} = 2)} \end{aligned}$$

Temperature GMM Exercise (E-Step)

This is the same as the inference question from the math prepare!

$$\begin{aligned}p(x^{(1)} = 10 | z^{(1)} = 1)p(z^{(1)} = 1) &= \mathcal{N}(10; \mu = 2, \sigma = 1)\pi_1 \\ &\approx 5.052271083536893e - 15\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}p(x^{(1)} = 10 | z^{(1)} = 2)p(z^{(1)} = 2) &= \mathcal{N}(10; \mu = 7, \sigma = 1)\pi_2 \\ &\approx 0.0044318484119380075\end{aligned}$$

Thus, $r_1^{(1)} \approx 0$, and $r_2^{(1)} \approx 1$.

Temperature GMM Exercise (M-Step)

Exercise Suppose we have the following measures for the temperature in Toronto this month:

$$x^{(1)} = 10, x^{(2)} = 12, x^{(3)} = 5, x^{(4)} = 4, x^{(5)} = 9$$

We wish to fit a mixture of 2 Gaussians to this data set.

Suppose that we have

$$\mathbf{r}^{(1)} \approx \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{r}^{(2)} \approx \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{r}^{(3)} \approx \begin{bmatrix} 0.08 \\ 0.92 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{r}^{(4)} \approx \begin{bmatrix} 0.92 \\ 0.08 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{r}^{(5)} \approx \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

Re-estimate $\mu_1, \mu_2, \sigma_1, \sigma_2, \pi_1$ and π_2 .

Temperature GMM Exercise (M-Step)

$$\pi_1 = \frac{1}{5} \sum_{i=1}^5 r_1^{(i)} = \dots$$

$$\pi_2 = \frac{1}{5} \sum_{i=1}^5 r_2^{(i)} = 1 - \pi_1$$

$$\mu_1 = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^5 r_1^{(i)} \cdot x^{(i)}}{\sum_{i=1}^5 r_1^{(i)}} = \dots$$

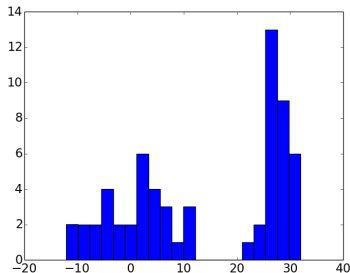
$$\mu_2 = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^5 r_2^{(i)} \cdot x^{(i)}}{\sum_{i=1}^5 r_2^{(i)}} = \dots$$

$$\sigma_1 = \frac{1}{\sum_{i=1}^5 r_1^{(i)}} \sum_{i=1}^5 r_1^{(i)} (x^{(i)} - \mu_1)(x^{(i)} - \mu_1) = \dots$$

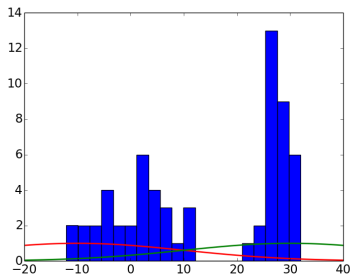
$$\sigma_2 = \frac{1}{\sum_{i=1}^5 r_2^{(i)}} \sum_{i=1}^5 r_2^{(i)} (x^{(i)} - \mu_2)(x^{(i)} - \mu_2) = \dots$$

Temperature Example

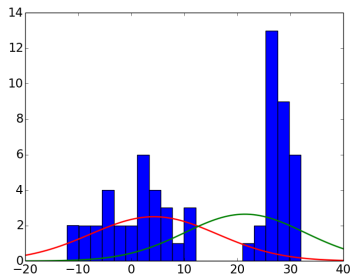
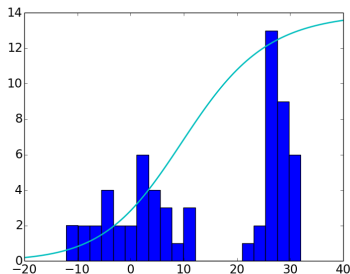
Let's demonstrate how GMM would work with the same problem if we had some more data:



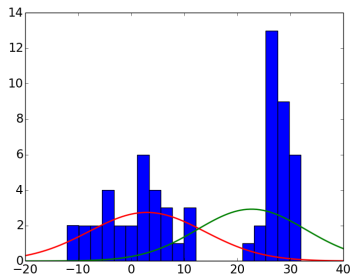
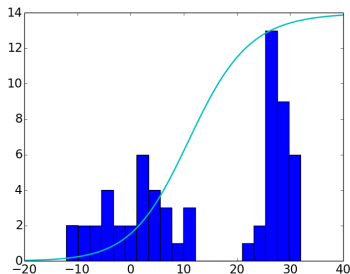
Temperature Example: Initialization



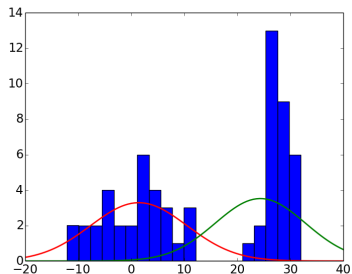
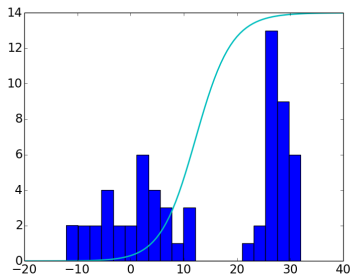
Temperature Example: Step 1



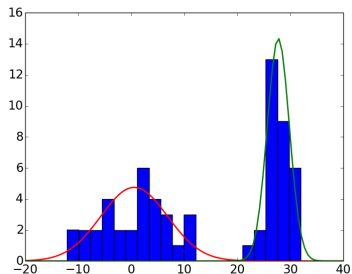
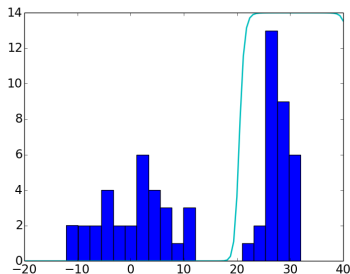
Temperature Example: Step 2



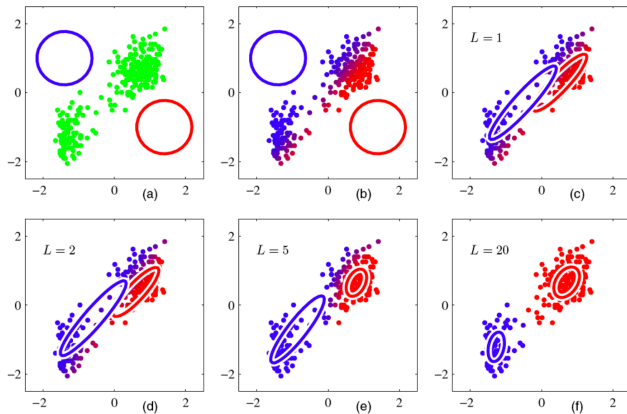
Temperature Example: Step 3



Temperature Example: Step 10



EM For Multivariate Gaussian



Relation to k-Means

The K-Means Algorithm:

- **Assignment step:** Assign each data point to the closest cluster
- **Refitting step:** Move each cluster center to the average of the data assigned to it

The EM Algorithm:

- **E-step:** Compute the posterior probability over z given our current model
- **M-step:** Maximize the probability that it would generate the data it is currently responsible for.

Relation to k-Means

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Can you find the similarities between the soft k-Means algorithm and EM algorithm with shared covariance $\frac{1}{\beta} \mathbf{I}$?

Both rely on alternating optimization methods and can suffer from bad local optima.

Section 4

Bernoulli Mixture Models (Lab 10)

Mixture Models

A GMM represents a distribution as a *mixture of Gaussians*

$$p(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{x} | \mu_k, \Sigma_k)$$

with π_k the **mixing coefficients**, where:

$$\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k = 1 \quad \text{and} \quad \pi_k \geq 0 \quad \forall k$$

We can also have a mixture of **other distributions** instead of Gaussians, and fit the model via E-M!

- Expectation Step: Compute responsibilities
- Maximization Step: Estimate model parameters

Recall the Naive Bayes Model

Recall the Naive Bayes classifier:

$$p(\mathbf{x}, c) = p(c) \prod_j p(x_j|c)$$

Where $p(c)$ and each $p(x_j|c)$ is a Bernoulli distribution fit using labeled data.

Recall the Naive Bayes Model

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If c is never observed, we call it a **latent variable**, or **hidden variable**, and again denote it with z instead.

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Recall the Naive Bayes classifier:

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Where $p(c)$ and each $p(x_j | c)$ is a Bernoulli distribution fit using labeled data.

If c is never observed, we call it a **latent variable**, or **hidden variable**, and again denote it with z instead.

Like before, by marginalizing out z , we get a density over the observables:

$$\begin{aligned} p(\mathbf{x}) &= \sum_k p(\mathbf{x}, z = k) = \sum_k p(\mathbf{x} | z = k) p(z = k) \\ &= \sum_k \prod_j p(x_j | z = k) p(z = k) \end{aligned}$$

Here, $p(z)$ is a categorical distribution parameterized by $p(z = k) = \pi_k$

Bernoulli Mixture Model (BMM)

A BMM is a finite mixture of random binary, independent features.

$$p(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_k \prod_j p(x_j|z = k) p(z = k)$$

Where $p(z = k) = \pi_k$, $\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k = 1$ and $\pi_k \geq 0 \quad \forall k$

And each $p(x_j|z = k) = \theta_{jk}$ describes a Bernoulli distribution.

This defines a density over $\mathbf{x}$, so we can (again) fit the parameters using maximum likelihood. We try to match the data density of $\mathbf{x}$ as closely as possible.

These are the same parameters as in Naive Bayes!

BMM Likelihood

$$\begin{aligned}\ell(\{\pi_k, \theta_{jk}\}) &= \sum_k \sum_{i=1}^N \log \left\{ p(\mathbf{x}^{(i)} | z^{(i)}) p(z^{(i)} = k) \right\} \\&= \sum_k \sum_{i=1}^N \log \left\{ p(z^{(i)} = k) \prod_{j=1}^D p(x_j^{(i)} | z^{(i)} = k) \right\} \\&= \sum_k \sum_{i=1}^N \left[\log p(z^{(i)} = k) + \sum_{j=1}^D \log p(x_j^{(i)} | z^{(i)} = k) \right] \\&= \sum_k \sum_{i=1}^N \log p(z^{(i)} = k) + \sum_k \sum_{j=1}^D \sum_{i=1}^N \log p(x_j^{(i)} | z^{(i)} = k)\end{aligned}$$

Fitting BMM parameters

Unlike in Naive Bayes, the classes z are *latent* and not observed. So, we will need to use the E-M algorithm to fit the parameters.

- **Expectation step (E-step):** Compute the posterior probability over z given our current model - i.e. how much do we think each set of Bernoulli generates each data point. We use Bayes rule.
- **Maximization step (M-step):** Assuming that the data really was generated this way, estimate the parameters π_k and θ_{jk} . We use maximum likelihood.

Expectation Step

Applying Bayes Rule, assign the **responsibility** $r_k^{(i)}$ of component k for data point i using the posterior probability:

$$r_k^{(i)} = p(z^{(i)} = k | \mathbf{x}^{(i)}) = \frac{p(z = k) p(\mathbf{x} | z = k)}{\sum_{\ell} p(z = \ell) p(\mathbf{x} | z = \ell)}$$

Maximization Step

Apply the maximum likelihood updates, where each component is fit with a weighted dataset. The weights are proportional to the responsibilities.

$$\begin{aligned}\pi_k &= \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N r_k^{(i)} \\ \theta_{jk} &= ???\end{aligned}$$

Complete this in the lab. This is very similar to parameter fitting in Naive Bayes!

Summary

Grouping data points into clusters, **with no observed labels**, is called **clustering**. It is an unsupervised learning technique.

Techniques for clustering:

- k-Means: For continuous features; if we expect the clusters to be spherical
- Mixture of Gaussians: allow more general shapes for clusters
- Other mixture models: allow various types of features and cluster distributions

Other commonly used methods: DBSCAN